Paper III • Unit I • Topic 4 — Social Issues and Social Movements in Telangana

Expanded research draft — not academically approved.

Exact syllabus map

(a) Social issues in Telangana: Vetti; Jogini and Devadasi system; girl child; fluorosis; child labour; migrant labour; child marriages. (b) Social movements in Telangana.

Topic summary

The subject links caste, class, gender, water quality, childhood vulnerabilities and labour mobility to Telangana social reform and collective action. The organising argument is that legal prohibitions are necessary but insufficient where material dependence and implementation gaps persist.

Exam-important distinctions

- **Vetti vs bonded labour:** historical customary coerced service versus a particular statutory regime under the 1976 Act.

- **Jogini vs Devadasi:** sociologically distinguish local dedication from the historically varied umbrella term; the Telangana 1988 statute explicitly includes Jogini.

- **Fluorosis:** high-fluoride chronic exposure is not the same as all groundwater contamination; safe-source tests matter.

- **Child marriage:** often voidable at the option of the child party, not universally void automatically.

- **Migrant labour:** mobility differs from trafficking and exploitation; portability of rights is the institutional challenge.

Vetti: forced labour and feudal domination

1. Meaning and historical context

Vetti refers to compelled or unpaid labour imposed through unequal power, historically associated with landlord dominance, hereditary social status, indebtedness and administrative coercion. It should not be reduced to ordinary low wages: the central issue is the worker's lack of effective freedom to refuse service, negotiate the terms of labour or leave. Under the Hyderabad State's agrarian order, village-level authority could be mediated through deshmukhs, doras and other local powerholders, although local forms varied. Households might have to supply agricultural work, domestic service, cartage, repairs or ceremonial services. The burden could fall especially on subordinated caste groups, but the precise obligations should be established for a particular locality rather than assumed universal.

2. Underlying mechanisms

The structure of exploitation operated through three reinforcing channels. **Economic dependence** meant that access to land, grain, loans and tenancy was controlled by more powerful groups. **Social hierarchy** made resistance costly because caste-based service was represented as custom or obligation. **Political and administrative asymmetry** made complaints difficult: local coercion, threatened eviction, withheld

wages or violence could enforce compliance. These mechanisms demonstrate why a purely contractual understanding of labour misses the reality of structural coercion. Vetti was therefore simultaneously a labour issue, a land issue and a human-dignity issue.

3. Regional evidence and causal analysis

Telangana peasant mobilisation against oppressive land relations in the 1940s placed forced labour among central grievances. Agricultural struggles, village sanghams and resistance to arbitrary levies cannot be explained by a single cause; debt, rack-renting, evictions, violence, social humiliation and forced labour interacted. Exam answers should distinguish the **1946–51 Telangana armed peasant struggle**, the **1948 accession of Hyderabad**, and later statutory and land-reform developments. These events overlap but are not interchangeable. The abolition of a princely political order by itself does not prove that caste coercion or informal labour dependence disappeared.

4. Law and institutional response

The **Bonded Labour System (Abolition) Act, 1976** is crucial for understanding the present legal framework, alongside **Article 23** of the Constitution prohibiting trafficking and forced labour. The Act addresses bonded labour, extinguishes specified obligations and provides for identification and rehabilitation. However, Vetti and bonded labour are not perfect synonyms: Vetti describes historically situated customary coerced service, whereas the 1976 Act establishes a statutory category with defined legal implications. A stronger answer makes the distinction explicit instead of saying that all unpaid work is bonded labour.

5. Critical evaluation and way forward

The policy challenge is implementation. An affected family may fear losing housing, informal credit, farmland access or social relationships after formal release. Rehabilitation therefore needs land or livelihood security, legal aid, schooling, safe housing, transparent identification, accessible complaints and protection against retaliation. Panchayats and district administrations must track actual freedom and income after release, not merely issue certificates. **High-value conclusion:** Vetti shows how caste, property and local state capacity combine to turn economic dependency into unfree labour.

Jogini: ritual dedication, caste-gender inequality and rehabilitation

1. Meaning and historical context

The Jogini system is a regional form of dedication involving girls or women and a deity or religious setting. Its contemporary significance lies not in sensational descriptions of rituals but in the intersection of coercion, vulnerability, gendered sexuality, community stigma and unequal life chances. Practices differed between settlements, castes and periods. A scholarly answer must avoid claiming that every Jogini experienced an identical sequence or that affected women lacked agency in every circumstance. Structural analysis instead asks who makes the dedication decision, who holds economic resources, what alternatives exist and who benefits from the arrangement.

2. Underlying mechanisms

The system can persist through a combination of **caste-linked exclusion**, household poverty, illness-related vows or beliefs, limited girls' schooling and fear of violating community custom. These

explanations are not excuses for exploitation. They show why criminal prohibition alone may be ineffective unless families can access credible health services, education and livelihoods. Dedication can constrain marriage choices, bodily autonomy, economic independence and the status of children. Stigma may be reproduced even after official intervention, making counselling, survivor-led organisations, pensions and housing significant parts of rehabilitation.

3. Regional evidence and causal analysis

The controlling law in Telangana is the **Telangana Devadasis (Prohibition of Dedication) Act, 1988**, originally an Andhra Pradesh enactment adapted after state formation. The Act expressly includes **Jogini** in its definition of Devadasi and treats acts of dedication as unlawful. This is the critical legal fact: **Jogini and Devadasi may be distinguished historically or sociologically, yet both are covered by the prohibition statute**. It recognises dedication by different names, addressing attempts to escape legal consequences through local terminology. Candidates should not confuse a ceremonial description with a legally valid religious exemption.

4. Law and institutional response

The social consequences include discontinuity in school attendance, exposure to sexual exploitation, restricted livelihood choice, reproductive-health risks and intergenerational stigma. Not every effect is quantifiable through a single statewide statistic. Reliable empirical evaluation needs district-level identification, survivors' consent and evidence about outcomes. Interventions should respect privacy: publishing lists identifying affected women can aggravate harms. The role of health workers, teachers, local women's collectives and community advocates is to prevent new dedication and enable voluntary, confidential access to remedies.

5. Critical evaluation and way forward

A strong Telangana policy response has five pillars: **prevention** through schooling and community dialogue; **enforcement** of the 1988 law; **rehabilitation** with assets, jobs and social security; **health and legal services** delivered without discrimination; and **monitoring** of actual choice and dignity rather than only ceremonies prevented. The constitutional basis lies in equality, protection against exploitation, personal liberty and dignity. The key mains argument is that criminalisation and rehabilitation must be designed together; otherwise a prohibited practice can continue invisibly.

Devadasi institution: historical diversity and legal prohibition

1. Meaning and historical context

The term Devadasi historically encompassed women connected to temple institutions through ritual, artistic, property or service relationships, with considerable regional and temporal diversity. Medieval epigraphic and literary material indicates contexts in which temple performers held established social or artistic positions; later colonial and postcolonial discussions often treated disparate practices as a single timeless institution. This creates a historiographical problem: a historical temple performer should not automatically be described as a victim of the exact exploitative pattern found in every modern dedication practice. An examination answer must differentiate **historical institution**, **regional ritual practice**, and **contemporary rights violation**.

2. Underlying mechanisms

Temple economies connected ritual performance, land grants, patronage and local elites. Changes in political patronage, colonial legal treatment, reform politics and economic relations transformed the place of women associated with these institutions. Nineteenth- and twentieth-century debates included concerns about sexual exploitation, moral policing, women's autonomy and preservation of performing arts. The complex history of dance reform should not be flattened into either uncritical celebration of the institution or the claim that its cultural output justified coercion. An analytical answer foregrounds consent and the unequal access to social power.

3. Regional evidence and causal analysis

In Telangana the operational legal reference is the **Telangana Devadasis (Prohibition of Dedication) Act, 1988**. Its statutory definition extends to named local variants including **Basavi, Jogini, Parvathi, Mathamma and Thyamma**. Thus, the law's coverage is broader than one popular label. Candidates should write that dedication is prohibited, marriages of women formerly dedicated are recognised under the relevant law, and penal and administrative provisions support enforcement. Avoid making unsupported assertions about exact punishment terms unless checked against the operative amended text.

4. Law and institutional response

An effective comparison with Jogini has four dimensions. **History:** the Devadasi label includes diverse temple-service and artistic histories, while Jogini commonly denotes a local dedication form. **Regionality:** nomenclature and practices differ. **Present harms:** involuntary dedication, discrimination and exploitation may intersect but should be documented in each setting. **Law:** the Telangana legislation covers both categories. This four-part comparison is an easy way to earn marks without repeating two nearly identical paragraphs.

5. Critical evaluation and way forward

Reform must centre survivors rather than merely symbols. Protective schooling, land or housing access, income generation, anti-discrimination enforcement, counselling and reintegration require sustained financing. Where former practitioners preserve an artistic lineage, cultural recognition must be separate from any pressure to submit girls to dedication. **Conclusion:** the historical evolution of a cultural institution cannot override modern constitutional standards of consent, equality and bodily autonomy.

Fluorosis in Telangana: a groundwater and public-health case

1. Meaning and historical context

Fluorosis is a chronic health condition linked to excessive fluoride exposure, particularly through drinking water over time. It must be distinguished from occasional ingestion and from diseases that have similar clinical presentations. **Dental fluorosis** may produce enamel changes during tooth development; **skeletal fluorosis** can involve bones and joints following prolonged exposure. Severe outcomes depend on concentration, duration, nutrition, water consumption and other factors. The **WHO guideline value of 1.5 mg/L fluoride in drinking water** is an important reference point, though national standards and risk-management settings should be checked for the exact regulatory use.

2. Underlying mechanisms

The Nalgonda region is a well-known Telangana case because groundwater flowing through fluoride-bearing geological formations can dissolve fluoride under favourable geochemical conditions. The

exposure is not caused by the mere presence of groundwater or by every borewell in a district. Rock chemistry, groundwater residence time, alkalinity, hydrogeological conditions, well depth and competing water sources affect measured concentrations. Students must therefore separate **geogenic contamination** from pollution associated with industrial discharge. Testing the actual source is necessary; appearance, taste and the word “borewell” cannot establish safety.

3. Regional evidence and causal analysis

Fluorosis is also a social-development issue. A household unable to pay for alternative water may continue using a contaminated source even with adequate awareness. Long distances to safe sources impose a time cost on women and children. Chronic disability can reduce income, educational attendance and participation in community life. Poor nutrition and delayed diagnosis can worsen vulnerability. A mains answer that merely recommends water filters misses institutional access, maintenance, behaviour change and health-system follow-up.

4. Law and institutional response

Options include safe surface-water supply, verified low-fluoride alternative sources, blending where technically appropriate, and suitable **defluoridation technologies** such as activated alumina or the **Nalgonda technique**. Treatment requires trained operators, sludge disposal, regular quality checks and financing. The Nalgonda technique, developed for fluoride removal using chemical coagulation and precipitation, should not be confused with the geographical disease burden in Nalgonda district. Each approach should be evaluated for lifecycle cost and reliable actual delivery, not merely installation.

5. Critical evaluation and way forward

Mission Bhagiratha has sought wider rural piped-water access in Telangana; the relevant outcome, however, is **continuously available water that meets tested quality standards at household points of use**. A rigorous answer recommends source mapping, periodically published fluoride test results, school and anganwadi screening, referral for dental and skeletal health, accessible safe supply and grievance redress. **Conclusion:** fluorosis is an example of how geology becomes a public-health injustice when water governance and household choices are constrained.

Girl child and child marriage: capabilities, protection and autonomy

1. Meaning and historical context

“Girl child” is not a single demographic disadvantage. It covers unequal nutrition and healthcare, schooling interruptions, unpaid care, safety restrictions, early marriage and the unequal distribution of family resources. Risks differ by class, caste, disability, region and migration status. A meaningful social analysis therefore studies **life-course disadvantages**: a school dropout can trigger greater economic dependence, reducing the ability to resist early marriage or unsafe work. Conversely, secondary education, safe mobility and employment aspirations can alter bargaining power within households.

2. Underlying mechanisms

Child marriage is legally defined under the **Prohibition of Child Marriage Act, 2006** with age thresholds of **under 18 for females** and **under 21 for males** in the Act’s definition. Section 3 generally makes a child marriage **voidable at the option of the party who was a child**, while the Act specifies additional

situations in which marriages are void. Writing that *all child marriages are automatically void* is therefore a major exam error. The law also provides mechanisms for preventive injunctions, protection, maintenance and Child Marriage Prohibition Officers.

3. Regional evidence and causal analysis

Root causes include poverty and debt, dowry concerns, family honour norms, safety fears, limited secondary schools and the perceived economic burden of an unmarried daughter. Families may frame early marriage as protection, but the decision can instead increase risks of interrupted education, adolescent pregnancy, restricted autonomy and dependence. A well-evidenced answer distinguishes **causation** from stereotypes: poverty is a factor but cannot by itself explain why some equally poor communities have much lower child-marriage prevalence.

4. Law and institutional response

Institutional responses require connecting the **Right of Children to Free and Compulsory Education Act, 2009**, the **POCSO Act, 2012**, the Prohibition of Child Marriage Act and public-health services without conflating their legal scopes. The RTE compulsory elementary-education framework covers ages **6–14**; that alone is insufficient to keep an adolescent girl in secondary school. Transport, toilets, menstrual-health support, safe hostels, scholarships, digital access and completion-oriented monitoring are important for older girls. Helplines and reporting mechanisms should protect privacy.

5. Critical evaluation and way forward

Telangana policy should measure transition from upper primary to secondary and higher secondary, school attendance, early pregnancy risks, access for migrant families and district variation. Teachers, accredited health workers, anganwadi systems, Child Marriage Prohibition Officers and women's groups can coordinate prevention before wedding preparations escalate. **Conclusion:** girls' empowerment depends on long-term capabilities and meaningful autonomy, not only cancellation of individual ceremonies.

Child labour: hazards, law and the schooling–livelihood link

1. Meaning and historical context

Child labour is work that deprives children of education, health, development or dignity, and the legal framework further defines prohibited employment. Not all age-appropriate assistance in the home is identical to commercial exploitation. The **Child and Adolescent Labour (Prohibition and Regulation) Act, 1986**, substantially amended in **2016**, broadly prohibits employing children under **14** across occupations, subject to limited statutory exceptions, and prohibits adolescents aged **14–18** from specified hazardous occupations and processes. The family-enterprise exception is not a blanket authorisation to miss school or expose a child to dangerous work.

2. Underlying mechanisms

In Telangana and neighbouring urban labour markets, risk settings can include small workshops, domestic labour, roadside commerce, brick kilns, agricultural operations, construction support and informal supply chains. These are **possible risk settings**, not proof that every establishment employs children. Labour subcontracting obscures the ultimate employer and complicates inspections. An enforcement strategy should follow supply chains and distinguish actual rescued cases, surveys and estimates; reporting an

arrest count as the prevalence of child labour is a statistical mistake.

3. Regional evidence and causal analysis

Drivers can be household indebtedness, irregular adult earnings, seasonal migration, school distance, poor instruction, discrimination, absence of childcare and employer demand for cheap, controllable workers. Children may perform paid, unpaid or family-based labour. Girls' domestic work is especially vulnerable to undercounting. A child who is technically enrolled but works long hours can still experience educational deprivation. This shows why school enrolment figures cannot substitute for attendance, learning and time-use evidence.

4. Law and institutional response

Prevention should combine adult livelihood protections, residential or bridge education when necessary, flexible school transfers, strong inspection capacity, employer accountability and case-specific rehabilitation. **Article 24** forbids child employment in factories, mines and hazardous occupations under the constitutional wording; **Article 21A** supports education in the 6–14 age group. POCSO and trafficking laws may apply in specific cases but should not be invoked automatically for every child-labour complaint. Protecting children requires coordinated rather than indiscriminate legal classification.

5. Critical evaluation and way forward

A strong mains answer proposes outcome measures: sustained school re-entry, age-appropriate learning, physical and mental health follow-up, family income security, prevention of re-trafficking and successful prosecution where warranted. **Conclusion:** labour inspections are necessary but insufficient if the household economic pressure and schooling failures that enable exploitation remain unchanged.

Migrant labour: mobility, precarity and portability of rights

1. Meaning and historical context

Migration is movement across a place of usual residence for work or other reasons; migrant labour is a subset defined by labour mobility. Telangana contains both migration **into Hyderabad and industrial districts** and movement out of dryland or low-opportunity villages. Seasonal migrants, circular migrants and more permanent migrants have different housing, schooling and benefit needs. Do not assume that every migrant is an interstate migrant: intra-district, intrastate and interstate movements must be identified separately.

2. Underlying mechanisms

Contractors and labour intermediaries may connect workers with construction sites, brick kilns, transport, services or manufacturing. These arrangements can reduce search costs but also create recruitment debts, wage deductions, weak documentation and obscured accountability. A power imbalance increases when a worker depends on the employer for both wages and housing. Women migrant workers may face additional constraints in sanitation, childcare, harassment reporting and access to reproductive-health services. Children may drop out when school records and instruction do not follow the family.

3. Regional evidence and causal analysis

The **Inter-State Migrant Workmen (Regulation of Employment and Conditions of Service) Act, 1979** is a historic statutory reference; contemporary answer writing must check the actual commencement and

operation of newer labour codes before asserting that older provisions have ceased to apply. The **One Nation One Ration Card** programme illustrates benefit portability, but ration portability does not automatically guarantee migrant access to primary healthcare, schools, provident-fund entitlements or affordable rental housing.

4. Law and institutional response

Urban Telangana examples should connect the employment pull of the Hyderabad metropolitan economy with informal rental markets, worker settlements, long commutes and exposure to occupational injury. Rural examples should consider rainfall variability, agricultural indebtedness, landlessness and weak nonfarm opportunities. Rather than label all movement “distress migration”, distinguish productive opportunity-seeking mobility from forced or constrained movement. The policy purpose should be to make mobility **safe, voluntary and rights-protected**, not to stop every migration flow.

5. Critical evaluation and way forward

Priority measures include registration without invasive surveillance, enforceable wage records, occupational-safety inspections, multilingual grievance channels, portable social protection, accessible creches, inter-state school transfer and dignified rental accommodation. Evaluate outcomes through actual wage receipt, accident rates, school continuity and benefit access. **Conclusion:** migration is compatible with development, but exploitation emerges where employment is mobile and social rights remain tied to a fixed address.

Telangana social movements: organisations, grievances and change

1. Meaning and historical context

Social movements are sustained collective efforts to alter unequal social relations, distribute resources or win recognition. They should be differentiated from a one-day protest, an electoral campaign or an individual grievance. Telangana’s movements have operated across intersecting axes: agrarian class, caste hierarchy, tribal rights, women’s dignity, language and regional autonomy. A strong answer identifies the **social base**, **organisations and leaders**, **repertoire of collective action**, **claims** and **outcomes**, while avoiding the impression that all movements had the same membership or ideology.

2. Underlying mechanisms

In the late Hyderabad State, **Andhra Mahasabha** and related organisational networks enabled demands around education, language and village grievances. The **Telangana peasant armed struggle (1946–51)** challenged oppressive agrarian relations, landlord violence, levies and forced labour. Its participants and goals changed across political phases; **Operation Polo in 1948**, the Indian Union’s accession process and the end of the armed struggle in 1951 mark different events. Women such as **Chakali Ailamma**, whose resistance has become emblematic of agrarian mobilisation, should be situated in the relevant tenancy and local power context rather than converted into unsourced legends.

3. Regional evidence and causal analysis

Tribal resistance also has distinct histories. **Komaram Bheem** is associated with Gond struggles against exploitation in the Asifabad area and the slogan popularly remembered as **Jal, Jangal, Zameen**; the wording and timing of quoted slogans should be treated carefully if the original contemporary

documentation is uncertain. **Ramji Gond** belongs to an earlier nineteenth-century resistance context. A well-written answer should analyse forests, customary resources, coercive extraction and political autonomy without merging different centuries.

4. Law and institutional response

After Independence, regional mobilisation reflected grievances over public employment, resource allocation, political safeguards and recognition of Telangana. The **1969 Telangana movement**, later mobilisation through civil-society platforms, and the movement culminating in **state formation on 2 June 2014** must be distinguished by leadership, institutions and political conditions. Regional identity was not one unchanging demand: employment guarantees, irrigation, perceived fiscal inequity and self-government acquired varying importance in different phases.

5. Critical evaluation and way forward

Women's movements, anti-caste struggles, anti-arrack campaigns and campaigns against Jogini dedication demonstrate that social reform is not only a question of state policy. They frequently combine legal demands, consciousness-raising, local support networks and material rehabilitation. Movements can win new formal rights while leaving implementation unfinished. **Mains synthesis:** Telangana social movements show the transformation of individual deprivation into collective political claims; the test of success is whether institutions materially alter access to land, labour freedom, education, resources and dignity.

Synthesis: linking social issues to movements

Vetti and land coercion contributed to agrarian collective organisation; the persistence of Jogini dedication illustrates a caste–gender problem requiring both prohibition and rehabilitation; fluorosis illustrates the conversion of a geogenic hazard into unequal health outcomes; and migration illustrates how mobile livelihoods collide with place-bound welfare administration. Across these problems, the hallmark of an exam-quality argument is naming the relevant mechanism, law and historical organisation before recommending solutions.

Quick revision: ten prompts

1. Explain how economic dependence and caste obligations reinforced Vetti.

2. Name the Act 10 of 1988 and identify which local categories it covers.

3. Contrast historical temple service with coercive contemporary dedication.

4. What is dental versus skeletal fluorosis?

5. Why is household-level water testing necessary?

6. Which employment categories are generally barred for children and adolescents?

7. Distinguish school enrolment from continuing learning.

8. Why is child marriage generally voidable rather than always automatically void?

9. Give three different forms of migration involving Telangana.

10. Differentiate the 1946–51 struggle, 1969 movement and 2014 state formation.

Structured professional mains answer bank

Original practice questions — NOT verified TGPSC previous-year questions.

Question: Vetti was more than an unpaid labour practice. Analyse.

Introduction

Vetti in historical Telangana signifies compelled or unpaid service embedded in unequal agrarian and caste relations. It was a system of domination because workers often lacked meaningful freedom to refuse.

Structural causes

Land dependence, credit obligations, hereditary service expectations and local power of landlords could reinforce one another. Loss of tenancy or housing was a threat that converted customary duty into coerced labour.

Social consequences

Vetti curtailed bargaining power, dignity and opportunities for schooling and alternative work. It also maintained the wider landlord structure by providing cheap services beyond ordinary agriculture.

Resistance and law

The 1946–51 Telangana agrarian struggle challenged forced labour alongside levies and evictions. Article 23 prohibits forced labour; the Bonded Labour System (Abolition) Act, 1976 provides a related statutory protection, though the terms Vetti and bonded labour are not identical.

Critical insight

The examiner should distinguish involuntary service from ordinary low wages and show how caste rank, tenancy and credit generated a coercive bargaining environment. An anti-Vetti answer must specify what changed after agrarian resistance and what present-day accountability mechanisms prevent re-emergence.

Conclusion

Durable eradication requires livelihood independence, enforcement, safe complaints and rehabilitation. Ending a formal obligation without changing dependency may merely conceal coercion.

Question: Explain the factors sustaining Jogini dedication and critically evaluate its prohibition.

Background

Jogini is a regional dedication practice involving girls or women. Its significance for contemporary policy lies in the intersection of ritual pressure, caste hierarchy, gender inequality and inadequate economic choice.

Root causes

Household poverty, limited schooling, vows linked to illness and unequal community norms can make refusal difficult. These are structural explanations, not cultural justifications.

Law

The Telangana Devadasis (Prohibition of Dedication) Act, 1988 treats dedication as unlawful and expressly includes Jogini within its statutory definition. Different local labels cannot create a lawful exemption.

Challenges

Survivors may experience stigma, health burdens and limited independent income after prohibition. Criminalisation without trusted counselling, privacy, education and livelihood rehabilitation risks pushing practices into invisibility.

Critical insight

The useful analytical contrast is between the ceremony's social label and the enforceable legal definition: the 1988 Telangana Act includes Jogini despite regional naming differences. Success must be measured through individual choice, school completion, rehabilitation and freedom from stigma.

Way forward and conclusion

Combine survivor-led prevention, legal enforcement, schooling, confidential healthcare and secure economic assets. The success indicator is actual freedom, not merely the number of ceremonies interrupted.

Question: Fluorosis in Telangana demonstrates the link between geography and social inequality. Discuss.

Introduction

Fluorosis arises from prolonged excessive fluoride exposure, typically through drinking water. The Nalgonda region illustrates how groundwater chemistry intersects with public health.

Geographic mechanism

Fluoride-bearing rocks, groundwater residence time and geochemical conditions may elevate dissolved fluoride. Contamination varies by source; borewell water cannot be assumed uniformly unsafe or safe.

Human consequences

Dental fluorosis affects enamel; skeletal fluorosis can damage bones and joints. Where households lack alternatives, chronic exposure may cause disability, schooling losses and reduced earning capacity.

Measures

A safe response combines periodic testing, alternative low-fluoride supply, properly operated defluoridation, school screening and clinical referral. Piped-water installation does not prove that safe water consistently reaches every home.

Critical insight

A policy answer must distinguish geological risk mapping from health surveillance. Safe drinking-water access is measured at the tap over time; treatment-plant construction totals cannot substitute for water-quality compliance, independent testing and follow-up of people already affected.

Conclusion

Fluorosis is preventable when geoscience, public-health follow-up and accountable local water service function together; otherwise natural groundwater risk becomes an inequitable social burden.

Question: Child marriage persists despite legislation. Examine the Telangana policy response.

Introduction

Child marriage restricts agency, schooling and adolescent health. Its persistence is linked to gender inequality and uneven educational and economic opportunity.

Root causes

Household insecurity, dowry expectations, family-honour norms, safety concerns and weak secondary-school access can push families toward early marriage.

Law and safeguards

Under the Prohibition of Child Marriage Act, 2006, a child is a female below 18 or male below 21. Section 3 generally makes the marriage voidable at the option of the child party; specified other circumstances can make a marriage void. Child Marriage Prohibition Officers support prevention.

Policy gaps

Cancellation alone may expose a girl to retaliation or school dropout if safe accommodation, income and continuing education are missing. The elementary RTE framework covers ages 6–14, leaving a vital secondary-school retention challenge.

Critical insight

A distinctive implementation recommendation is to identify girls at risk of transition-related dropout before a wedding is arranged. Tracking secondary-school completion, safe travel, household support and repeat-risk cases better measures prevention than a simple count of cancelled marriages.

Conclusion

Focus on early detection, safe transport and residential schooling, confidential case support, parental engagement and long-term education outcomes rather than only prosecutions.

Question: Discuss why migrant labour requires portable social protection in Telangana.

Introduction

Hyderabad attracts workers while rural households may undertake seasonal and circular migration. Migrants contribute to growth but face service gaps when benefits remain tied to a fixed location.

Causes and patterns

Construction, services, manufacturing and brick kilns attract contractors and migrant workers. Intra-state migration differs from inter-state migration; not every movement is distress-driven.

Vulnerabilities

Informal housing, delayed pay, workplace injury, language barriers, lack of creches and interruptions to children's schooling can undermine mobility gains.

Institutional measures

Ration portability is useful, but it cannot by itself assure health access, labour standards or school transfer. Wage records, safety inspections, bilingual grievance systems and affordable rental housing must travel with workers.

Critical insight

Migrant workers are not a homogeneous category. Age, gender, duration, occupation, home-state documentation and contractor arrangements alter vulnerability. Strong administration connects wage enforcement and social-security portability to schools, childcare and safe rental accommodation at actual worksites.

Conclusion

Public policy should protect the right to move safely and voluntarily, measuring wages received, injury risks, school continuity and benefits actually accessed.

Question: Explain the relationship between social movements and structural change in Telangana.

Introduction

Social movements convert persistent private grievances into collective claims for land, dignity, political voice and recognition.

Historical background

Andhra Mahasabha networks and village mobilisation addressed language and agrarian grievances. The 1946–51 Telangana peasant struggle challenged coercive land relations, levies and Vetti.

Different strands

Tribal struggles associated with Ramji Gond and Komaram Bheem occurred in distinct historical contexts. The 1969 agitation and subsequent regional mobilisation culminating in statehood in 2014 concerned safeguards, resources and self-government.

Critical assessment

Movements can secure legislation or political reorganisation without immediately eliminating caste exclusion, agrarian inequality or gender-based exploitation. Social mobilisation and public administration must therefore be evaluated separately.

Critical insight

Avoid claiming that political statehood automatically solved rural social inequality. An evidence-led assessment separates movement objectives, institutional concessions and longer-term outcomes for tenants, tribal communities, women and landless workers, using named organisations and distinct historical phases.

Conclusion

The lasting measure of social movement success is not mobilisation alone but enforceable access to land, welfare, schooling, safe work, dignity and democratic participation.